

FILM STUDIES

An Introduction

Ed Sikov

Second Edition

COLUMBIA UNIVERSITY PRESS NEW YORK



COLUMBIA UNIVERSITY PRESS

Publishers Since 1893

NEW YORK CHICHESTER, WEST SUSSEX

cup.columbia.edu

Copyright © 2020 Ed Sikov

All rights reserved

E-ISBN 978-0-231-55156-4

The author and Columbia University Press gratefully acknowledge permission to quote material from John Belton, *American Cinema/American Culture*, 3rd ed. (New York: McGraw-Hill, 2008); copyright © 2008 McGraw-Hill Companies Inc.

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data

Names: Sikov, Ed, author.

Title: Film studies : an introduction / Ed Sikov.

Description: Second edition. | New York : Columbia University Press, [2020] | Series: Film and culture series | Includes index.

Identifiers: LCCN 2020001950 (print) | LCCN 2020001951 (ebook) | ISBN 9780231195928 (cloth) | ISBN 9780231195935 (paperback)

Subjects: LCSH: Motion pictures.

Classification: LCC PN1994 .S535 2020 (print) | LCC PN1994 (ebook) | DDC 791.43—dc23

LC record available at <https://lcn.loc.gov/2020001950>

LC ebook record available at <https://lcn.loc.gov/2020001951>

A Columbia University Press E-book.

CUP would be pleased to hear about your reading experience with this e-book at cup-ebook@columbia.edu.

Cover images: TCD / Prod.DB / Alamy Stock Photo

CHAPTER 6

NARRATIVE: FROM SCENE TO SCENE

NARRATIVE STRUCTURE

Even the simplest stories can be broken down into component parts:

1. Boy meets girl
2. Boy loses girl
3. Boy tries to get girl back
4. Boy and girl get together in the end

If this conventional story takes the form of a feature-length film, each of its four parts is composed of hundreds of individual shots. Each shot contains mise-en-scene elements that convey expressive information, and each transition from shot to shot compounds that information by creating relationships. But what about *the story*? How does the boy meet the girl? Why does he lose the girl? What does he do to get her back, and what stands in his way? What changes does the boy go through. What does he learn? This chapter is about how film studies addresses questions like these by analyzing film narratives.

First of all, what does the term NARRATIVE mean? Narrative simply means *storytelling*. Not all films are narrative films. There are DOCUMENTARIES—nonfiction accounts of real people and events that may or may not tell a story in the process. And there are [AVANT-GARDE](#) or experimental films that may be composed of nothing but shapes or colors or shots of people and things that are not assembled in the form of a tale.

But most of the films you will see in your life—and most of the television shows as well—are narratives. They tell stories, and their stories follow broad patterns or conventions. How do we begin to analyze these patterns?

STORY AND PLOT

The first step is to distinguish between STORY and PLOT. What's the difference? In everyday conversation, we use the two terms interchangeably. But in film studies, *story* refers to the events the tale tells, while *plot* refers to its structuring. Using the boy-meets-girl example, this particular story concerns Josh and Jennifer and how they meet, get to know each other, and end up married and having children and grandchildren. The *plot*, on the other hand, is as follows:

1. A little girl named ELSIE asks a 60-year-old JOSH and JENNIFER how they met; the little girl is their granddaughter. Jennifer begins to tell their story.
 2. YOUNG JOSH, a 25-year-old rookie cop, arrests YOUNG JENNIFER for speeding.
 3. The 60-year-old Josh laughs and says, no, that's not what happened at all.
 4. Young Josh arrests Young Jennifer for driving without a license
- ...

The story, in other words, tells what happened to Josh and Jennifer from the beginning (they meet) to the end (they have a granddaughter). The plot, on the other hand, is the order in which the filmmaker reveals these story elements to the audience: first we see that they have a granddaughter, then we see how they met.

A more formal definition of *story* is this: *all the events of the narrative as they occur in chronological order from beginning to end, including not only those that we see and hear, but those we infer*. In this example, we infer that Josh and Jennifer had at least one child because we see that they have a grandchild; the child him- or herself may not appear in the film.

Here is a more formal definition of *plot*: *the ordering and structuring of narrative events as they are presented in the film*.

In sum, the story of Josh and Jennifer begins with him arresting her for one reason or another and ends with them as late-middle-aged people telling their granddaughter how they met, whereas the plot begins with the two characters as elderly people telling conflicting stories.

To further complicate matters, film studies uses a term to describe *the world of the story*: DIEGESIS. The diegesis of a film is *all the story elements presented by the narrative, no matter whether they are actually seen or heard onscreen or not*. Perhaps the best way to describe the diegesis is by giving an example of its opposite: the musical score of a film is generally NONDIEGETIC. If a character turns on the car radio and music comes on, that music is DIEGETIC. However, the music played over the opening credits or closing credits, or any music that does not originate within the story, is nondiegetic. The theme from *Star Wars* is nondiegetic; Luke Skywalker doesn't hear it in the background, but the audience does. But if, on the other hand, Josh and Jennifer are seen onscreen watching *Star Wars* on DVD on their first date, the theme music from *Star Wars* would be diegetic because the music originates in their story world; *the characters can hear it*.

And finally, there are two more terms, drawn from the school of literary criticism known as Russian Formalism, that distinguish between the events of the story and their presentation to the audience: [FABULA](#) and [SYUZHET](#). As defined by the film historian and theorist David Bordwell, the *syuzhet* is essentially the film's plot—it's the specific ordering of narrative elements within the film. The *fabula*, however, is more than simply the story being told; it's the story that each of us constructs as we watch and hear the *syuzhet* unfold. It's all the story material presented by the filmmaker, but it's also the story material and associations we bring to the film as individuals—the stories we tell ourselves based on the stories we are being told. Just as every story has an unlimited number of plots that could tell it, so every *syuzhet* sparks an infinite number of *fabulas*. Why?

Because every audience member brings his or her own personal experience to the movies we watch, the stories we're told.

SCENES AND SEQUENCES

If the story of Josh and Jennifer were written in screenplay form, it might begin this way:

SAMPLE SCREENPLAY

FADE IN:

INT [abbreviation for *Interior*]. JOSH AND JENNIFER'S LIVING ROOM, 2050—DAY

JOSH, a 60-year-old man with gray hair, is sitting on a couch with his wife, JENNIFER, also 60, though her hair is dyed bright red. In Jennifer's lap is ELSIE, age 7. She is wearing a futuristic plastic T-shirt and sweatpants and shoes in the shape of rockets.

ELSIE

Grandma, how did you meet Grandpa?

JENNIFER

(grinning)

Well, dear, your grandfather and I met between exits 5 and 6 on the New Jersey Turnpike.

EXT [abbreviation for *Exterior*]. NEW JERSEY TURNPIKE, 2015—DAY

Cars are whizzing by as YOUNG JOSH sits in his patrol car, which is hidden behind some trees by the side of the road. One car goes by particularly fast, and Young Josh reacts immediately by gunning his engine, causing his back tires to shoot gravel behind them as he takes off after the speeding car ...

The "Sample Screenplay" box shows how a typed screenplay actually looks. The following shows the same elements of the preceding screenplay, but this time these elements are identified and also indicate the proper indentations for your screenplay.

SAMPLE SCREENPLAY ELEMENTS

[ALWAYS THE FIRST ITEM ON THE FIRST PAGE]

FADE IN:

[SCENE HEADING]

INT [abbreviation for *Interior*]. JOSH AND JENNIFER'S LIVING ROOM, 2050—DAY

[CHARACTER'S FIRST APPEARANCE (USE ALL CAPS)

and **CHARACTER DESCRIPTION]**

JOSH, a 60-year-old man with gray hair, is sitting on a couch with his wife, JENNIFER, also 60, though her hair is dyed bright red. In Jennifer's lap is ELSIE, age 7. She is wearing a futuristic plastic T-shirt and sweatpants and shoes in the shape of rockets.

[CHARACTER CUE

and **DIALOG]**

ELSIE

Grandma, how did you meet Grandpa?

[CHARACTER CUE

and **PERSONAL DIRECTION**

and **DIALOG]**

JENNIFER

(grinning)

Well, dear, your grandfather and I met between exits 5 and 6 on the New Jersey Turnpike.

[SCENE HEADING]

EXT [abbreviation for *Exterior*]. NEW JERSEY TURNPIKE, 2015—DAY

Cars are whizzing by as YOUNG JOSH sits in his patrol car, which is hidden behind some trees by the side of the road. One car goes by particularly fast, and Young Josh reacts immediately by gunning his engine, causing his back tires to shoot gravel behind them as he takes off after the speeding car ...

Note: Formats and software for screenplays can readily be found on the internet (for example, see scriptbuddy.com or screenplayguide.com).

This screenplay already makes several notable distinctions: between *scenes*; between *interior* and *exterior*; between *time periods* (2055 and 2015); and between *characters* (JOSH, JENNIFER, ELSIE, and YOUNG JOSH). But because this is a film and not simply a written narrative, a full analysis of what we see onscreen would have to include a shot-by-shot breakdown:

SHOT 1: Long shot of JOSH, a 60-year-old man with gray hair, sitting on a couch with his wife, JENNIFER, also 60, though her hair is dyed bright red. In Jennifer's lap is ELSIE, age 7. She is wearing a futuristic plastic T-shirt and sweatpants and shoes in the shape of rockets. Jennifer begins bouncing Elsie on her knee. Cut on the action to:

SHOT 2: Close-up of Elsie's feet, which do not reach the floor, bouncing up and down. Cut on this action to:

SHOT 3: Close-up of Elsie's bouncing face as Elsie laughs. Elsie says, "Grandma, how did you meet Grandpa?"

SHOT 4: Same as shot 1: Long shot of Josh, Jennifer, and Elsie on the couch. Jennifer, grinning, says, "Well, dear, your grandfather and I met between exits 5 and 6 on the New Jersey Turnpike." Cut to:

SHOT 5: Long shot of SIGN ON TURNPIKE that reads "Speed limit 75 mph." Cut to:

SHOT 6: Long shot of cars whizzing by. Cut to:

SHOT 7: Medium shot of YOUNG JOSH through the window of his patrol car, looking bored.

SHOT 8:	Long shot of patrol car, which is hidden behind some trees by the side of the road.
SHOT 9:	Same as Shot 6, but now one car goes by particularly fast.
SHOT 10:	Same as Shot 7, but now Young Josh reacts immediately by gunning his engine (sound of engine roaring).
SHOT 11:	Close-up of back left tire shooting gravel behind it as the car begins to move. Cut on action to:
SHOT 12:	Same as Shot 8, but now the patrol car is moving forward out of its hiding place and onto the highway ...

This shot-by-shot breakdown is itself not a complete descriptive analysis because it leaves out such important elements as lighting, most of the costume details, and all of the camera angles. (For example: Are these all eye-level shots, or are they varied?) And because this movie has not yet been cast, let alone filmed, we do not know what any of the characters looks like beyond the barest descriptions of their ages and hair color. Still, this analysis suggests another important distinction: between the terms SCENE and SEQUENCE. *A scene is defined by the unity of time, space, and action.* In other words, a scene is a unified action that takes place in one location during a single time period. (A single scene set in a hospital emergency room might include a waiting room, a hallway, and an examining room *if the camera moves continually from one room to the next*). Scenes are defined by their location and time period; sequences are defined by the patterns of shots within each scene. Both are units of dramatic action. In this example, there are two scenes: one inside, the other outside; the first in 2055, the second in 2015.

A *sequence*, on the other hand, *maintains one or more of these unities while introducing a discontinuity*. In a classical Hollywood **montage** sequence, for example, this discontinuity occurs temporally—time is usually speeded up in a montage sequence. In a **crosscutting** sequence, the discontinuity occurs spatially. In the example here, the first scene—Shots 1 through 4—contains one sequence. The second scene contains another sequence: Shots 5 through 12 are at least the beginning of an action sequence that might go on to include shots of Young Jennifer at the wheel of the speeding car, close-ups of Young Josh as he chases her, a long shot of Young Jennifer's car with Young Josh's car entering the image from the right, and so on.

Note also the reversal of chronological time in the plotting of this story. Filmed stories are not always told in the order in which the events happened. The terms **FLASHBACK** and **FLASHFORWARD** describe two of the ways time can be manipulated in motion pictures. We would describe Scene 2 as a *flashback—a shot, sequence, or scene that takes place in the past, before the present-day time frame established by the film*. In this example, the year 2055 is established as the film's present day despite its being in *our* future, so anything that happens before that year must occur in the form of a flashback. A *flashforward* achieves the opposite effect: it's *a shot, sequence, or scene that takes place in the future, after the present-day time frame established by the film*. Our film might end, for instance, with a flashforward of Elsie, herself aged 60, telling her own grandchild a story.

TRANSITIONS FROM SCENE TO SCENE

Nowadays, most transitions from scene to scene occur with a simple cut, as in the example above, in which the director cut from Scene 1 to Scene 2 without using any special transitional technique. But throughout film history, directors have employed more elaborate means to shift from one scene to another. These devices are the FADE-IN and FADE-OUT; the IRIS-IN and IRIS-OUT; the DISSOLVE, and the WIPE.

With a *fade-in*, the screen often begins as an entirely black field (though sometimes it's entirely white), with the image gradually appearing until it is at full strength and clarity; with a *fade-out*, the opposite occurs: the image gradually disappears until the screen is either all white or all black.

An *iris-in* is created when the image begins as a small circle in the middle of an all-white or all-black screen and widens until it covers the screen. An *iris-out* is the reverse: the full rectangular image shrinks in a circular form until it disappears in the middle of the screen. *Irises* are not restricted to transitions. The effect of looking through a telescope could be achieved by a fixed, nonmoving iris that masks the rectangular edges of the image into a circular form. A character looking through a pair of binoculars might be expressed by masking the rectangular image into two circular forms connected at the center.

With a *dissolve*, one image fades out while the subsequent image fades in, thereby creating the impression of a multiple exposure. With a *superimposition*, two separate and distinct images overlap. At the midway point of a dissolve, when the two images are of equal intensity, the effect is a superimposition.

And a *wipe* is created when one image appears to push another image off the screen. Wipes may occur in any direction—horizontally, vertically, or diagonally. Or they may take the form of a shape: a *star wipe*, for instance, is a wipe in which the second image appears in the center of the screen in the shape of a star and expands outward, appearing to “wipe” the first image off the screen. Wipes, which are optical effects created in the processing lab, were popular transitional devices in the 1930s and 1940s, but they fell out of favor until video technology made them easy to achieve, and they became popular again in music videos beginning in the 1980s.

Finally, there is a technique known as CROSSCUTTING. *Crosscutting* is defined as *editing that alternates two or more lines of action occurring in different places or times, thereby connecting them*.

Here's a classic example of crosscutting used countless times in so-called *B westerns*—and by the way, when film studies refers to a **B movie**, *B* is not short for *bad*; a *B movie* is a film that was made to

fill the B side of a double feature and was probably less expensive to produce than the **A picture** that preceded it. In any event: a crosscutting example from a B western is a shot of a woman tied to the railroad tracks; a shot of a man riding on a horse; a shot of the woman on the railroad tracks; a shot of the man on the horse; a shot of a speeding train; a shot of the woman on the tracks; a shot of the man on the horse; a shot of the speeding train ... and so on.

What do you assume from these separate shots? You are likely to connect them all in your mind, rather like the Kuleshov experiment, and understand that the woman is about to be run over by the train unless the man on the horse arrives in time to save her. It wouldn't make a bit of difference if the woman was tied to the tracks in Kentucky, the train was in fact in California, and the man on the horse was in Saskatchewan, and the shots were filmed three months apart. When the director edits them all together into a crosscutting sequence, he or she is *telling an interconnected story by drawing two or more lines of action together by way of editing*.

Bear in mind that crosscutting is different than simple cutting. If a director cuts back and forth between two characters in the same space, it's CUTTING. If a director cuts from one character to another character *not* in the same space, then back to the first character, then back to the second character, then perhaps to a third character in still a different space, that's *crosscutting*. Different spaces or times being linked temporally by editing: that's crosscutting.

CHARACTER, DESIRE, AND CONFLICT

That narrative films are often about an individual character in search or pursuit of a goal is a convention so basic to Americans' experience of motion pictures that we often take it completely for granted. In the conventional "boy meets girl" story, we simply assume that what the boy really wants (however little he may be aware of the fact at the beginning of the film) is to get together with the girl in the end. If he didn't, there would be little substance to the tale. "Boy meets girl and doesn't care" might make an out-of-the-ordinary comedy, but unless the boy wants something else—money

and fame, for instance, or maybe another boy—his lack of a goal would likely result in a very short movie.

We also assume that something will get in the way of the central character's pursuit of his or her goal. Boy meets girl, boy gets girl—the end? Once again, this scenario would make for a very brief film.

Film studies tends to describe the central character's pursuit of a goal with the word *desire*. In the conventional boy-meets-girl story, the desire is essentially sexual in nature, but films deal with other forms of desire as well: knowledge, for example. The narrative of *Citizen Kane* unfolds around the basic question of what “rosebud,” Kane's dying word, means. On a more abstract level is the question of who the title character actually is beyond his public image; a journalist attempts to unlock the secret of Charles Foster Kane's identity by interviewing his friends and business associates, and we, the audience, share the reporter's desire for information. (Kane himself turns out to be a man whose desire knows no bounds, though precisely what he wants remains elusive at the end.) Characters may also express desire by seeking a better life for themselves. What is *The Wizard of Oz* (1939) if not a quest for a more colorful and exciting world over the rainbow?

Fortunately for audiences, characters almost always find their desire thwarted by something. If film characters got what they wanted right away, they would be satisfied—and audiences would be bored. (Murder mysteries go out of their way to delay the delivery of information. “*Who did it?*” “*She did!*”—a two-minute film.) Narratives require *conflict*. In *Citizen Kane*, for instance, the reporter discovers that Kane's friends each saw a slightly different side of Kane—they offer subtly conflicting accounts of the man, and the journalist's attempt to learn the meaning of Kane's final utterance, “rosebud,” ends in failure. Kane himself, meanwhile, cannot achieve what he sets out to achieve because other people and circumstances get in the way. His desire, too, is left unfulfilled.

Imagine *The Wizard of Oz* without the Wicked Witch of the West. If she didn't appear from time to time to block Dorothy's progress to Oz, the film would be not only shorter but duller. Dorothy would simply skip happily down the Yellow Brick Road with her friends, and

that would be that. Who wants to watch somebody happily skipping for two hours?

Desire and conflict come into play even in those relatively rare instances in which a narrative film does not center on a single protagonist or group of protagonists. In Eisenstein's *Battleship Potemkin*, for instance, the conflict is not between an individual sailor and something that stands between him and his goals but between two opposing collective forces: the czarist government and its officers and soldiers on the one hand and the people of Odessa and the sailors on the battleship on the other. *Battleship Potemkin*'s narrative unfolds as a conflict of these two groups: the desire to preserve the czarist government and the class structure it represents and the desire to change it.

ANALYZING CONFLICT

In the next chapter, you will learn how to break down cinematic stories in a process called [SEGMENTATION](#). Segmentations can be rather detailed, so for the time being, let's simply break down a familiar movie into its broadest component parts.

The Wizard of Oz: locations

Beginning: Kansas

Middle: Oz

End: Kansas

The Wizard of Oz: main characters

Dorothy

Miss Gulch / the Wicked Witch of the West

The Wizard of Oz: secondary characters

Auntie Em and the farmhands / Scarecrow, Tin Man, Cowardly Lion

Professor Marvel / the Wizard

The Wizard of Oz: desires

Beginning: Dorothy wants to leave home

Middle: Dorothy wants to return home

End: Both desires are fulfilled by the end

The Wizard of Oz: conflicts

- Beginning: Dorothy vs. Miss Gulch over the possession of Toto
Middle: Dorothy vs. the Wicked Witch over the possession of the ruby slippers
End: Both conflicts are resolved by the end

What do you notice about *The Wizard of Oz*'s structure? If you have seen the film, you have experienced the effects of its structure, but what occurs to you now that you have seen it broken down into its basic elements?



FIGURE 6.1 A publicity still from *The Wizard of Oz* (1939)—Dorothy (Judy Garland) and Toto in Kansas. (Photofest)

First, you should be able to see that there is a symmetry to its locations: the film ends where it began, in Kansas—specifically, on Auntie Em's farm.

There is also a doubling of characters—primarily Miss Gulch and the Wicked Witch, and secondarily Professor Marvel and the Wizard and the farmhands/Oz trio.

This doubling repeats itself in terms of the film's major conflicts: Dorothy and Miss Gulch are in conflict over Toto in Kansas, and

Dorothy and Miss Gulch's double, the Wicked Witch, fight over control of the ruby slippers in Oz.

The symmetrical narrative structure and doubling of characters in *The Wizard of Oz* are formal devices and are aesthetically pleasing as such, but they also convey meaning—or meanings. One may draw individual conclusions about what *The Wizard of Oz* is ultimately saying from an ideological perspective (or a psychological or sociological one), but the film's narrative structure provides a firm foundation for a basic claim: *The Wizard of Oz* is about the contradictory feelings a teenage girl harbors about her home. By comparing and contrasting an ordinary Kansas farm with the fantastic world of Oz, the film suggests both the virtues and limitations of conventional American life in the 1930s.

Does the film really embrace the idea that “there's no place like home”? Is Kansas ultimately more satisfying than Oz? Does the film espouse conservative values by showing Dorothy that she had everything she really wanted all along, and that her dreams of escaping conventionality were misguided? We may come up with our own answers to these questions depending on who we are and how we view the world, but the film's narrative structure provides a solid foundation for the individual arguments we make about its meaning.

STUDY GUIDE: ANALYZING SCENE-TO-SCENE EDITING

If you have not seen *The Wizard of Oz*, or if you don't remember it very well, watch the film and pay particular attention to its narrative structure and the formal, visual devices the director, Victor Fleming, uses to get from one scene to another. (In fact, you can watch *any* film and do the same thing. *The Wizard of Oz* is suggested here because of its familiarity and relatively simple narrative structure, not to mention its prominent place in this chapter, but any narrative film will work.)

Analyzing narrative structure, like any facet of formal film analysis, requires us to concentrate on one aspect of a particular film and, in effect, isolate it from the rest of the movie. With *The Wizard of Oz*, it's necessary to put aside our enjoyment of Judy Garland's beautiful voice and the Wicked Witch's spectacular nose and green makeup and keep our minds on transitions. It's tough not to let yourself get so caught up in the film that you fail to notice shifts from scene to scene. If you're watching the film (or any film) on DVD and you realize that your mind has wandered—you're in the middle of a new scene, and you don't know how you got there—just hit the reverse button and rewind to the previous scene. Come to think of it, the fact that you failed to notice a particular transition is itself noteworthy: what device or set of devices did the director use to make this transition so smooth that you didn't notice it?

If a structural pattern seems to be emerging, write it down.

If anything at all occurs to you, write it down.

At the end of the film, try to put into words at least one aspect of its narrative structure. Think about the film's representation of time. Did the events depicted occur completely chronologically, or were there flashbacks or flashforwards? Consider the film's locations. Did it take place in a wide variety of locales, or were the events set in only a few places?

What was the film about? To what extent did its narrative structure inform its meaning?

Finally, to return to *The Wizard of Oz* as an example, ask yourself the questions posed at the end of the previous section; if you have been thinking about another film, ask similar questions about it. What ideas did the film convey about culture, society, race, class, sex and gender, and even the meaning of life? *What did the film say?* Can you base your opinion on the evidence provided by the film's structure?

WRITING ABOUT NARRATIVE STRUCTURE

Citing evidence is an essential aspect of making an argument about a given film's meaning. One can simply assert that *The Wizard of Oz* is a conservative film because it says that women are better off staying at home on the farm, but the assertion remains a matter of opinion until it is proven by way of facts. In film studies, these facts are found in the film's formal details and structure.

Just as you have learned to describe a shot specifically and accurately by the camera's apparent distance from the subject (close-up, medium shot, long shot) or by its static or [mobile framing](#) (tracking shot, pan, crane), and in the same way that you have begun to analyze the relationship between one shot and another (cut, dissolve, eye-line match), so you can use the patterns created by a film's narrative structure to serve as a basis for any claims you make about what a film has to say about the world—what it means.

Let's say you do hold the opinion that *The Wizard of Oz* takes a very conservative view of the world—that the film does indeed say that women should learn to stay at home. (One could argue precisely the opposite, by the way; *The Wizard of Oz*, and narrative films in general, often support a variety of readings.) Your task as a critic is to support your argument with factual evidence from the film. In this case, you could use the movie's symmetrical narrative structure to help prove your point: even though the plot transports Dorothy to the colorful land of Oz and provides her with exciting adventures of the sort she craves when she sings "Over the Rainbow," the narrative structure returns her precisely to where she started out. That this is a way of saying that women are better off staying at home remains your opinion, but you have supported it with an undeniable fact.